CHAPTER 11

# Nationalism in Africa: Concepts, Types and Phases

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## Introduction

This chapter examines nationalism in Africa, looking at concepts, types and phases from the earliest times to the present. Some scholars have wondered if there is a history of nationalism in Africa, arguing that Africa has never had one nation. To argue this is to miss the point, because Africa has had a unique identity of blackness and Africans have resided on the same continent for centuries, enjoying a consciousness through similar experiences that are separate from "outsiders" and invaders from other continents. Africans have shared hopes, aspirations and identity, and shared past. The history of African nationalism goes back centuries to when African states resisted foreign invaders and occupation. The earliest manifestation of nationalism in Africa is found in the Ethiopian state, which resisted invaders from the north and east before the Christian era. Abyssinia, as the Ethiopian state was known under the Negus, served as a refuge for refugees from the early Christian and Islamic states. This chapter will demonstrate that there have been many phases in the history of African nationalism. Africa has experienced some of the most violent nationalist expressions, in which millions of people lost their lives. In some countries such as Algeria, Angola, Kenya, South Africa and Zimbabwe, it took armed struggle to dislodge minority white rule. There are many concepts, types and phases of nationalism in Africa, and they stretch back hundreds of years.

Concepts relating to African nationalism include ethnic nationalism or the earliest phase of consciousness among African chiefdoms and kingdoms, which were first organized under single ethnic groups, speaking the same language.

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These ethnic entities later developed into empires that sought to conquer or incorporate members from other ethnic groups. There are also concepts that describe multinationalist movements that incorporated members from many ethnic groups; and this is where the majority of nationalist movements in Africa belong. There were also many cases of unification movements led by Africa's founding presidents who worked hard to create a cohesive and integrated society through nationalist agenda and projects. Many of these nationalist projects sought to create national culture, identity, symbols, aspirations and interests, such as those of Julius Nyerere of Tanzania and Kwame Nkrumah of Ghana. In the 1960s, Africans started to move to cities in large numbers, and what we saw was an emergence of new identifies that were cut off from rural villages, them, being hybrids of different ethnic groups, called in the Kenyan urban milieu *Pointis*, meaning that they have mixed blood as a result of intermarriage.

There are many types of nationalisms that have emerged in Africa. They include local nationalism, regional nationalism, nation-state nationalism, continental African nationalism, Black nationalism or pan-Africanism. Local nationalism often takes ethnic dimensions and is responsible for many of the ethnic tensions and civil wars on the continent. There is also regional nationalism in which people from one region, north or south, feel they have similar interests and aspirations to those from other regions. This thinking affects many countries in Africa today. There is also state nationalism, expressed by members of a nation-state. This type of nationalism emerged in modern states in Africa and brought together members of many ethnic groups. This was the type of nationalism supported by Africa's founding presidents, such as Kwame Nkrumah and Julius Nyerere, among others. This state nationalism based on the nation-state is constantly being fought by local nationalism in African countries.

There is also what is known as continental African nationalism, or Black Nationalism or pan-Africanism, which has been expressed as a reaction against foreigners or invaders from other parts of the world who were non-Africans, and included Arabs and Europeans. It incorporated people on the continent as well as those in the Black diaspora, and was a response to imperial incursions into the African continent.[1] It was a reaction to colonial overtures and oppression by European powers; a response to the racism and prejudice which gripped most of Europe and the Americas in the late nineteenth and early twentieth centuries, affecting Black people who were increasingly excluded and discriminated against in Europe and Americas, looked down upon and denigrated.[2] Black nationalism or pan-Africanism was an attempt to find an alternative. On the African continent, continental nationalism was championed by Haile Selassie of Ethiopia and Kwame Nkrumah of Ghana, among others. In the diaspora, continental or Black nationalism or pan-Africanism was articulated by, for example, Marcus Garvey and W.E.B. Dubois.

This chapter provides a synopsis of various concepts, types and phases of nationalism in Africa using case studies from the continent. The understanding is that although these case studies are not necessarily representative of all strands of nationalism, they represent relevant strands. The African continent

has faced many challenges in the past, many of which revolve around negative ethnicity, especially the separatist and secessionist movements that fueled civil wars in the Democratic Republic of the Congo during the Katanga crisis and Nigeria during the Biafran war. The Katanga crisis and Biafra conflicts were caused by internal nationalist feelings that were basically ethnic as well as external factors (Were and Amutabi 2000). The Africa that produced model nationalists and pan-Africanists such as Julius Nyerere and Kwame Nkrumah also produced buffoons and nincompoops such as Jean Baptiste Bokassa and Idi Amin. Why has African nationalism not produced a United States of Africa? Why are there xenophobic feelings in southern Africa against fellow Africans, even though southern Africa was liberated by efforts of other Africans? Is it a lapse of memory or are humans selfish and egocentric through and through? These are the issues that this chapter addresses.

## Conceptualizing the Changing Phases of Nationalism in Africa

Many definitions of nationalism have been based on the European trajectory of unifications in Germany, Italy and such like, where they talk of shared histories, language, similar past, hopes and aspirations. We need to go beyond these traditional definitions and look at nationalism in terms of emerging trends, where nations are still creating what one call national representative cultures. This is because globalization is creating new identities that are defying boundaries of traditional nationalism.[3] In his book *In My Father's House*, Kwame Antony Appiah suggests a new form of hybridity in Africa, in which new identities are forged.[4] He goes further, suggesting the possibilities of people who regard themselves as global citizens, not belonging to any nationality and being disconnected from their roots owing to disconnections created by the new world order that is dominated by the media and other influences. Congolese scholar V.Y. Mudimbe also seems to suggest that some nations in Africa have been invented by the colonial project, whose agenda is imperial divide and conquer and in which some individuals are coopted and function as appendages of the former imperial powers.[5] These new postcolonial and postmodern forms of looking at the state of nationalism in Africa pre-suppose a lack of a pure ethnic group, in which intermarriage and interaction of groups on the African continent allows us to look at a varied conglomeration of people who are as diverse as they come.

If one looks at Chinua Achebe's *Things Fall Apart*, the village of Umuofia, Okonkwo and the environment are insulated from the outside world, which is suddenly disrupted by the arrival of white people.[6] The same can be said about Ngugi wa Thiong'o's *The River Between*, in which the tranquility of the Kameno village is disrupted by the arrival of missionaries at Siriana.[7] The reaction of the people to strangers is different in Umuofia and Kameno, but what makes the experiences similar is that both Igbo and Kikuyu are aware that they are different from the strangers and seek solutions collectively. The collective reaction in

African villages is different from the indifferent and ambivalent response one sees in urban areas in Kenya today, where people create bonds that are transethnic in their neighborhoods, interspersing these with burial associations formed by people from various rural locales. We start to see dual and even triple allegiances to ethnic groups, work associations and neighborhood societies.

In many writings on African nationalism, the tendency is to look at it as a top down idea, passing from leaders to the peasants or hoi polloi below. The hoi polloi have no agency other than providing audiences in political rallies and demonstrations. But beneath the separation of the elite and mass conceptualization is allegiance to a charismatic leader who reminds the people where they belong and who their friends and enemies are. There is trust that the leader is speaking the truth and the intention is to assist the masses to be liberated from oppression. The message is that unity is strength, and it is only through this that the oppressor can be defeated. It is this type of conceptualization that creates possibilities for a United States of Africa, in which Kwame Nkrumah, Julius Nyerere and Haile Selassie saw and envisioned an Africa where ethnic groups can be united to form one nation. In Nigeria, Nnamdi Azikiwe forged a union with Sir Abubakar Tafawa Balewa, until 1966 when this was undermined by a military coup. In Uganda, Milton Obote and the Kabaka Sir Edward Mutesa brought the Uganda People's Congress (UPC) and the Kabaka Yekka Party together (Salim 1984). In Angola, Holden Roberto and Agostinho Neto united to forge a strong national agenda in which they incorporated a reluctant Jonas Savimbi. In Zimbabwe, Robert Mugabe's Zimbabwe African National Union (ZANU) and Joshua Nkomo's Zimbabwe African Peoples Union (ZAPU) created a formidable opposition against the minority colonial rule. Although still a top down examination of nationalism, there is a strong popular appeal in the brand of nationalisms that they pursued which helped them to be elected by the majority after independence.

There are many possibilities when we look at African nationalism fifty years later. Many narratives have embellished some of the nationalist activities more than others. There is also valorization of some accounts, such as the Mau narrative in Kenya, and the discussion whether ZAPU did more than ZANU or vice versa. In the nationalist narratives, some groups have been left out and remain silenced, while at the same time some accounts are privileged. Is it possible to have accounts of nationalism that are holistic and representative of all groups?

## Local Nationalism, Proto-Nationalism and the Birth of Nationalism in Africa

There were various manifestations of local nationalisms in Africa, best illustrated by what took place in Uganda—which allowed the Buganda kingdom to create strategies of self-preservation, fairly successfully, against the competing interests of rival kingdoms such as Bunyoro, Ankole and Toro. Gideon S. Were's book *East Africa Through a Thousand Years* pays great tribute to a group of Africa's

pre-colonial rulers who resisted colonial penetration.[8] The book creates a duality between the manner and nature of encounter in which some African leaders either resisted or collaborated with Europeans. In this oppositional duality, Were's notion is predicated on the belief that only these two possibilities existed, and yet we are finding evidence to suggest that there are those who wanted to be neutral: they did not want to welcome white people, yet neither did they want to fight them. Terms such as acquiescence or accommodation suggest forms of welcoming and inviting of the colonial project, which is far from the reality. No African state was comfortable with the presence of European imperialists in their territories. Experiences from Uganda, Zimbabwe, Nigeria, Ghana and South Africa illustrate the complexity of the encounter between Africans and Europeans, and how it produced different scenarios that created diverse dynamics.[9] Uganda had more than half a dozen competing kingdoms that were by and large connected by a long history of relations and linkages. These states included Buganda, Bunyoro, Ankole, Toro, Karagwe, Busoga, Haya States and Wanga kingdom.

Buganda kingdom was trapped in the vortex of encounter largely because of its location at the headwaters of the Nile: many European travelers ended up in Uganda in pursuit of the source of the Nile. Activities of explorers such as Samuel Baker, John Speke and James Grant created a unique exposure for the kingdoms of Uganda but also allowed for the shaping of new narratives around the classification of hostile and non-hostile kingdoms.[10] Some scholars have questioned whether indeed Buganda was accommodating and cooperating with the British imperial project, and ask if they had any choice.[11] Did the Baganda have agency and voice? Did they have an alternative? White intrusion was invasive and condescending; it was not a situation that any state would have loved to find itself in. White intrusion took away many of the African kingdoms' privileges and what emerged were strategies of survival. The British found Buganda a remarkably fascinating case to do business with.[12] They found there remarkable tranquility and an aristocratic order that resembled hierarchical British society in many ways.[13] The Baganda on the other hand saw the possibility of taking advantage of friendship with allies who had the power of the Maxim gun, which they could use to their benefit in dealing with their bigger and stronger rivals in the north, the Banyoro of Bunyoro kingdom. So, was this nationalism on the part of the Baganda, as they were protecting their interests against the Banyore and welcoming the British so they would assist them in defending their terrain?

Activities in Uganda before the arrival of the Europeans present the Baganda as opportunists rather than nationalists, operating sometimes like a mercenary or a predator state that allowed itself to seize any advantage that came within its borders. This argument is lent credence by the behavior of Buganda kingdom, which moved quickly to set up business deals with Arab and Persian traders from the coast, and exchanged many goods such as ivory and rhinoceros horns for the musket.[14] The Baganda were quick to identify the benefits of trade and welcomed Swahili traders from the Islamic towns on the Indian

Ocean coast such as Mombasa, Malindi and Kilwa. As a result, Islam arrived, and some Baganda converted: they were regarded as allies by Arab and Persian traders and accorded all manner of privileges as a result, as brothers and not infidels or kaffirs. Opportunism and the survival of the Buganda kingdom may have played a role in the conversion of Kabaka Mwanga to Islam. There was a realization that Islam came alongside rewarding trade deals, strong allies and muskets. When Europeans arrived with the more powerful Maxim gun, Kabaka Mwanga renounced Islam in favor of Christianity.

Can one classify the actions of the Buganda state and Kabaka Mwanga as nationalistic or just acts in self-preservation? Isn't self-preservation part of nationalism? The Baganda helped the British in the execution of the colonial project. They acted as subimperialists in annexing other parts of Uganda, using sons of Buganda such as Semei Kakungulu and Sir Apollo Kagwa.[15] The Catholic and Protestant presence in Buganda created tensions that culminated in a civil war, leading to a very intricate domestic political situation in which Muslims, Catholics and Protestants were all making converts, which in addition to the traditional religion made four political groupings, all struggling to control Baganda society.[16] Nationalism was not strong in these times, as it was overtaken by religious interests. Later, the privileging of the Baganda would lead to reactions against their hegemony, to which other ethnic groups reacted strongly in the post-colonial state. Therefore, proto-nationalism and local nationalism became precursors of nationalism in Africa. The case of Buganda demonstrates that the colonial occupation created a new form of nationalism in which the local forces coalesced and united to resist white rule. At this point there was true nationalism. Nationalism emerges from a certain consciousness of difference and a need to seek unity in order to win or to feel at home.

Identify plays an important role in this conceptualization of nationalism. Blackness becomes a major marker of unity in African nationalist consciousness, similar to experiences in the diaspora. The Baganda realized that they were more similar to the Banyoro and Banyankole than to white rulers, and they united in forming political parties to champion the interests of Africans. The formation of the Uganda People's Congress by Milton Obote and its coalition with the Kabaka Yekka Party was a manifestation of this realization. Similarly, when Kwame Nkrumah was in the United States of America, he preached in an African American Baptist church in Philadelphia where the people were Black like him, giving him a sense of belonging. He led a pan-African student movement at the University of Pennsylvania, the African Students Association (ASA), which was also guided by blackness but was rooted in and originated in Africa.[17] But even if identify becomes an important aspect in explaining nationalism, how do we explain circumstances in which African states conquered each other and assimilated the conquered? How do we explain cases where two or more groups lived under one kingdom but never merged into a single entity? Take the case of the Shona and the Ndebele in Zimbabwe, who lived under Mzilikazi and Lobengua but exhibited differences after independence. What is interesting is that in Chumurenga I and II Africans rose up

against the whites jointly; the differences only came after independence after the common enemy departed.

In Zimbabwe, the Ndebele have felt marginalized and targeted by the majority Shona in Robert Mugabe's regime, where the Shona are increasingly privileged. Against such tensions, is there such a thing as Zimbabwean nationalism? We see a similar situation in Nigeria where Igbo feelings were expressed by breakaway Biafra, which was thwarted by a Federal army supported by a government that enjoyed support from the majority ethnic groups who saw themselves as Nigerians. The same tension obtained in the Democratic Republic of the Congo through secession attempts by Katanga Province. Can we observe Congolese nationalism? In all these cases, I think we can talk about Zimbabwean nationalism, Nigerian nationalism and Congolese nationalism because there are many times when they are expressed as such.[18] We have seen Shona and Ndebele, Igbo and the rest of Nigerians and majority Congolese shed tears when their national teams lose in international competitions. They may have local differences but they are in solidarity with each other when dealing with external adversaries. They all proudly sing their national anthems together and share in the narrative of how they defeated colonialism.

## Modern African Nationalism from the 1940s

In a number of ways, modern African nationalism started in the 1940s.[19] This is the time when many African students were returning from studies abroad. This is also the time when Second World War veterans were beginning to assert themselves as able soldiers, and realized they could fight for the liberation of their countries as they had done for European colonial powers. Many of the causes of nationalism in Africa revolved around land grievances. Africans in settler colonies such as Kenya, South Africa, Zimbabwe, Algeria and Mozambique bitterly resented being squeezed into "native reserves," where congestion and land scarcity became major problems.[20] The causes of nationalism revolved around land, poor education for Africans, discriminatory labor policies, overtaxation and religious oppression.

Africans formed nationalist movements to demand back their land. In Kenya, huge tracts of lands were grabbed and set aside as "White Highlands," where only whites were allowed to own land. In Mozambique, Prazos were run by whites as small chiefdoms along the Zambezi River and other fertile areas, from which Africans were excluded. Given the poor colonial land policies that favored Europeans at the expense of Africans, it is not surprising that the primary reason Africans fought for their independence was because of land, the source of their livelihood as well as the sacred home of their ancestors. In Kenya, the Kenya Land Freedom Army or Mau Mau movement engaged in all manner of sabotage and targeted isolated white farms for attack, and it worked. In Zimbabwe, the various nationalist parties such as ZAPU and ZANU created armed liberation wings. The same obtained in Angola, Mozambique, Namibia

and South Africa, where the respective national parties MPLA, FRELIMO and SWAPO also took up arms.

Poor education for Africans was another grievance for nationalists. In many colonies from Nigeria and Ghana in the west, through Kenya and Tanzania in the east and Zimbabwe and South Africa in the south, indigenous populations complained about poor education which marginalized Africans. The situation was worse in settler colonies such as Kenya, Zimbabwe and South Africa, where Africans were excluded from good schools and colleges. Some schools were branded as whites only and enjoyed the best facilities and teachers, while schools meant for Africans had mediocre facilities. In Kenya, national schools such as Duke of York (Nairobi School) and Prince of Wales (Lenana School) were for whites only and prepared learners for university education, while mission schools taught humility and obedience and promoted service for the colony. There were also technical schools that taught manual labor and minor artisan trades.

Africans also protested against poor labor policies and poor working conditions.[21] Labor policies were discriminatory, whites being called officers and Africans called laborers. Whites earned salaries while Africans earned wages. African wages were kept low and trade unions were prohibited in domestic service, in which many Africans were employed. In Ghana, African youth, who were increasingly coming from missionary schools and other institutions such as Achimota, were not getting the type of elite jobs that the pioneers had received. They were made to work under white superiors with far less education. Many of them joined the Kwame Nkrumah's Convention Peoples Party (CPP), as they saw hope in independence. On January 6, 1950, the Gold Coast Trade Unions Council declared a general strike, with many grievances related to the CPP's platform. The government arrested all union and CPP leaders on January 21, 1950.[22] The strike failed and Nkrumah served a year in jail, but the CPP dominated local elections two months later and led Ghana to independence in 1957.

In settler colonies, trade unions were prohibited from tourism, mining and agriculture, the three largest sectors of African employment in Kenya, South Africa and Zimbabwe. Many Kenyan trade unionists such as Dennis Akumu and Tom Mboya came face to face with ruthless colonial officials who threatened them with detention. There were sympathetic whites who created some welfare associations for Africans such as the Kavirondo Tax Payers Association, which was assisted by Cannon Owen.[23] In South Africa, Clements Kedalie was confronted with a white regime that was prepared to perpetuate oppression of the Blacks. Discontent first emerged in the African press, especially in the Mugwithania in Kenya and the *Daily News* and the *Catholic Moto* in Zimbabwe and in Sowetan in South Africa. In Zimbabwe, the African National Congress (ANC), led by Abel Muzorewa, was often the mouthpiece through which labor unions and individuals voiced their grievances. Although the colonial government, through censorship and the banning of undesirable organizations, firmly suppressed any militant actions, it helped to create grounds for nationalism in Zimbabwe.

There was a lot of physical and psychological violence in the colonies as Frantz Fanon has ably documented in his book *The Wretched of the Earth*. In settler colonies, Africans protested against mistreatment in offices and white farms and mines.[24] There were cases of forced labor coupled with complicated rules and regulations of movement. In Kenya and South Africa, the colonial state used *kipande* (identity card) and passbook to control the movement of Africans. The white settlers had been demanding this as a means of keeping track of their workers and cutting down crime. It was also meant to restrict all Africans' movement, especially the so-called vagrants or vagabonds. Africans were restricted to certain spaces and could only move out with the authorization of the state. This became one of the grievances against white rule in Kenya and South Africa and was on the agenda of nationalist movements and parties.

African independent churches were part of African nationalism and the search for African identity. The main reason for their creation was to ensure that Africans could be masters of their own lives. The church was a site of the African search for empowerment. In many urban areas, the churches became mechanisms for transition, rural to urban, as well as relating to social capital and social mobility. They were mainly products of syncretism; movements that took what they believed were the best from Christianity and African cultural practices.[25] Africans were dissatisfied with the way Christian missionaries condemned African culture (Ogot and Welbourn 1966). The causes for breaking away included resistance to the restrictions on indigenous customs and traditions.[26] Three prominent issues that stood on the agenda were *intonjane* (girls' initiation, or female circumcision/genital mutilation), *lobola* (dowry or bride price) and polygamy. Many missionaries did not understand the cultural implications and meaning of *lobola* and opposed it, seeing it as trade in human beings. Similarly, female circumcision was opposed by missionaries for many reasons. In 1928 in Kenya, the Church of Scotland mission tried to prohibit this custom among its Kikuyu members. The result was an explosion of anger and outrage among the Kikuyu. There were massive secessions and two separatist Churches emerged. The entire episode had an important influence on the nationalist, independence movement, which was already underway. In South Africa, an outbreak among the Zulu in 1905–1906, called the Bambaha Rebellion, was blamed on religious separatism. Changing ideology also affected churches, leading to breakaway or secession in South Africa. This introduced elements of Pentecostalism—baptism by immersion, faith healing, speaking in tongues. In his book *Bantu Prophets in South Africa* Bengt Sundkler identified two categories: Ethiopian churches and Zionist churches.

There was an indirect connection between religious independence and political independence. This was certainly true in Kenya where the independent churches became centers for rebels where people sought refuge and organized "subversive" or "clandestine" activities. In Kenya's nationalist movement, independent church leaders such as Bildad Kaggia played an important role in national politics.[27] Also in Kenya, Elijah Masinde founded his Dini ya Musambwa religious sect and became a political activist, organizing boycotts and protests.[28] The two most frequently cited examples in South Africa are the

events leading to the Bulhoek massacre in Queenstown in 1921 and Wellington Buthelezi's Garveyite (after Marcus Garvey) movement in the Transkei in the 1920s. In Malawi, the actions of John Chilembwe were unquestionably political (rather than accidental as some scholars have alleged). Chilembwe had running battles with the British colonial authorities, and was very vocal in defending the interests of Africans. His actions are often regarded as part of nationalism in Malawi.

We should point out that no one grievance can be said to have been responsible for the rise of nationalism in Africa. At the same time, we should note that African groups did not always unite for one cause. There were multiple grievances, over land, employment opportunities, discrimination in promotion and general lack of respect for Africans by Europeans. It was not unusual to find many groups emerging to fight whites. In Angola, Holden Roberto formed the National Front for the Liberation of Angola (FNLA) in Kinshasa to liberate Angola from Portuguese rule. Agostinho Neto formed the Popular Liberation Movement of Angola (MPLA) in the 1950s. These two movements united at independence, but the National Union for the Total Independence of Angola (UNITA) led by Jonas Savimbi broke away and retreated to his Ovimbundu backyard, from which he mounted rebel activities.

## Pan-Africanism as Part of African Nationalism

Is it right to discuss pan-Africanism as part of African nationalism? Yes, it is, because there was a consciousness that united people of African descent to speak with one voice owing to their shared heritage. There has also been a belief that blackness united Africans in ways that other identities did not.[29] Colonial oppression at home and racism abroad that targeted Africans made them have similar feelings and aspirations, and a desire for freedom. Scholars such as Bethuel Allan Ogot and Adu Boehen have identified two traditions, whereas others such as Maurice Amutabi have identified three.[30] The two common traditions saw pan-Africanism as that originating from the continent or the strand emanating from outside, from the Black diaspora, where it was regarded as Black racism. The three traditions that I would like to use in understanding pan-Africanism include the "Africanist" stream that represents pan-Africanism through the actions of Africans residing on the continent such as Haile Selassie, while the second is regarded as the "racist response" or "search for equality" stream that sees pan-Africanism as reactionary to racial and colonial oppression, whether by ways of coded communication as seen in Ebonics or through rebellion, while the third is a muted and neutral stream that sees pan-Africanism as an expression of identity and not necessarily a form of contestation. We have not documented the actions of the Zulu *impis* at the battle of Isandlwana under pan-Africanism, but there is a need to see this as a strong motivation for many African-based reactions to foreign invaders, replicated in many places such as the reaction by Menelik II at the battle of Adwa in Ethiopia of 1877 by the Zulu *impis* who massacred the British column of 800 red jackets. So that we can

say that although Africans from the African continent attended pan African congresses and were certainly aware of the ideas of pan-Africanism as they evolved in the twentieth century, the "Africanist" tradition did not have a major impact and influence on African nationalism in Africa until the 1940s.

Europe did not develop a collective nationalist appeal against foreigners because it did not come under colonial occupation such as that witnessed in Africa, Asia and Latin America. The collective continental consciousness in Africa was triggered by the people in the diaspora who looked to Africa for identity and collective self. Africa became a rallying cry against slavery and oppression, showing that the people had a continent they could call home and which was once the greatest, with mighty kingdoms and empires which had been invaded.[31] They planned a return, similar to the biblical Moses, who led the Israelites from exile in Egypt through the desert. There have been many explanations of pan-Africanism, many of which acknowledge that as an idea it remained largely at elite level and rarely permeated the masses.

The diaspora strand of pan-Africanism was better documented and enjoyed much scholarly attention compared with the pan-Africanist strand erupting from the African continent that was represented by a celebration of the African past and Ethiopianism. Members of the African diaspora, primarily from the Western hemisphere, have therefore been credited with developing pan-Africanism, and Edward Blyden has been cited as the founder of the movement. However, I would like to contest that claim and assert that the origins of pan-Africanism were multipronged and cannot be linked to one person. There are well-documented efforts of African empires such as Ethiopia trying hard to stop Europeans from taking over fellow Blacks and freeing Blacks from slave caravans.[32] The explanation of pan-Africanism as arising through the diaspora became popular and found its way into many textbooks, and it has been hard to correct this mistake.[33] Thus pan-Africanism was seen by some as not African in its origins. True, leadership and ownership of documented pan-Africanism did not appear to incorporate Africans on the continent until 1945, but we are aware of many efforts made by leaders such Menelik II to lock whites out of the African continent as early as 1896, during the battle of Adwa.

Diasporic pan-Africanism represented by people such as Edward Blyden, Marcus Garvey, W.E.B. Dubois and George Padmore differed in many remarkable ways from pan-Africanism on the continent represented by people such as Haile Selassie, Kwame Nkrumah and Julius Nyerere. Diasporic pan-Africanists wanted Black agency back; they advocated for equality and voice and accepted the concept of "race" and its dualities as normal, whereas pan-Africanists at home saw pan-Africanism as rising against white imperialism, colonial occupation and oppression, which were hegemonic and needed to end. Diasporic pan-Africanism was articulated in many writings.[34] These carried the idea that Blacks as people of color had a great deal in common (i.e., that many traits, even cultural ones, were genetic). Thus, it has been called a Black racism. In 1888 Edward Blyden wrote: "I would rather be a member of

the African race now than a Greek in the time of Alexander, a Roman in the Augustan period, or an Anglo-Saxon in the nineteenth century." This was Black pride at its best, and one can detect overtones of racial pride which may have rubbed whites up the wrong way. There was a sense of a nostalgia for a great African past, and a valorization of this. In 1902, Edward Blyden was the first person to use the term "African personality." He said: "Every race has a soul, and the soul of a race finds expression in its institutions." There is a clear indication that the diasporic pan-Africanism was more assertive and articulate.

There is no doubt that diasporic leaders such as Dubois inspired many young Africans studying in the West such as Jomo Kenyatta, Kwame Nkrumha and Hastings Kamuzu Banda, among others. Diasporic pan-Africanists defended the rights of Blacks and assertion of pride in being Black (later popularized under notions of Black beauty), which found great illumination in the Harlem Renaissance and other cultural revivalisms. Like Blyden, Dubois had to confront the problem of white racism, and wrote early in the twentieth century: "The problem of the twentieth century is the problem of the color line—the relation of the darker to the lighter races of men in Asia and Africa, in America and the islands of the sea." He was the first African American to receive a Ph.D. from Harvard, in 1902, and was able to articulate his feelings and thoughts more succinctly on paper, through many essays and books. The ideas of diasporic pan-Africanists were further magnified by the "Black is beautiful" movement in the 1960s and 1970s, Léopold Sédar Senghor's concept of Negritude, expressed in *Présence Africaine*, and other forms of Black consciousness.

The 1940s saw the birth of modern nationalism, and this coincided with pan-African congresses organized by W.E.B. Dubois (Okonkwo 1980). There are many scholars who see Emperor Haile Selassie as a major figure in pan-Africanism and African nationalism, and he was looked upon as Africa's elder statesman. He called the first meeting that saw the creation of Organization of African Unity (OAU) in Addis Ababa, Ethiopia, the precursor of the African Union (AU), and the AU's headquarters are located in Addis Ababa to this day. Pan-Africanism was also carried to Africa by returning students. Of more significance were African students studying in the USA, such Kwame Nkrumah. Ghana's independence, the first in sub-Saharan Africa, inspired Africans throughout the continent. Most scholars give Kwame Nkrumah a lot of prominence in the promotion of the ideals of pan-Africanism on the African continent. He was a great believer in unity and the need for cooperation among Africans, and he set out to build pan-Africanism in Africa. In 1958, Nkrumah organized and held the first conference of independent African states where representatives of eight states, mostly from North Africa, attended. In 1960, the second gathering was held in Addis Ababa, with the number of states represented increasing to fifteen. At the third conference, also in Addis Ababa, twenty-eight states and governments formed the OAU. In the early days of the OAU,

the focus was on assisting all Africa to become independent; this was also the aspect which brought most unanimity. In Ghana, Nkrumah felt the need to build a sense of national identity in a national state that had been created artificially by colonial conquest and contained different ethnic and religious groups. At the same time he tried very energetically to go beyond nationalism in pan-Africanism, before he was overthrown in one of the earliest military coups in Africa, on March 13, 1966.

## Conclusion

African nationalism was successful because by 1994 all African states were totally liberated from colonial control. Whether diasporic in origin or originating from the African continent, pan-Africanism affirmed the worth of Black people and therefore rejected the inferiority ascribed by racist thought in the late nineteenth and twentieth centuries. It also helped to launch the struggle for rights and equality for Black people in the diaspora. Although there were advocates of a return migration to Africa, eventually and especially after 1945, Black people in the diaspora focused on rights and justice where they lived. In Africa, it asserted the right of independence for Africans—"Africa for Africans." It held out a lofty ideal for the future of independent Africa. Nkrumah granted free citizenship to all African Americans, and in the 1960s there were many immigrants who arrived in Ghana and were granted citizenship. One of these was W.E.B. Dubois, who moved to the country, and died and was buried there. The W.E.B. Dubois burial site in Accra is a national monument, visited by thousands of tourists annually.

The legacy of Kwame Nkrumah, Julius Nyerere and Haile Selassie is the AU, which remains one of the greatest manifestations of a pan-African spirit that started in the diaspora and today is embedded in many African states. Nyerere was the embodiment of the twentieth-century African liberation struggle and continental solidarity. He provided support and shelter for many African freedom fighters who were persecuted in their home countries, transforming Tanzania into a safe haven for many people. A strong advocate of the importance in recognizing the wisdom inherent in local culture and in decolonizing people's minds, he advanced policies that promoted cohesion and integration, such as the establishment of Kiswahili as the national language and the implementation of a more African-centered curriculum in schools. His greatest legacy was resigning from the presidency voluntarily in 1985. Despite making some progress, African leaders have tended to focus on the nation state, and thus there have been boundary disputes and conflicts between African states that are yet to be resolved. In addition, the AU and African leaderships collectively have been able to do little about the horrific problems of oppressive African regimes, where leaders are changing constitutions in order to extend their terns in office.